

$X_1, X_2, \dots, X_5$ iid Unif. on $\{0, 1, \dots, 15\}$

$$P\left(\sum_{i=1}^5 X_i = 15\right)$$

① Using CLT with "continuity correction"

$$P\left(\sum_{i=1}^5 X_i = 15\right) \approx P(14.5 \leq Y \leq 15.5) = 0.0035788$$

$$\text{where } Y \sim N\left((7.5)(5), (5)V(X_i)\right) \\ 106.25$$

② 16^5 possible values for $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_5$, they are ELO

How many of these have $\sum X_i = 15$?

First note that

$X_1 = 15, X_2 = X_3 = X_4 = X_5 = 0$ are two different possibilities

$X_1 = X_2 = X_3 = X_4 = 0, X_5 = 15$

Hence, the numerator is not $\binom{15}{5}$

Instead, imagine 19 spaces:



Place a "divider" | in 4 of them

Place a "O" in the other 15

The result will be 5 groups of circles, their total has to be 15

$X_1 = \#$ of "O" to the left of first divider

$X_2 =$

There are $\binom{19}{4}$ ways of placing the "dividers"

So, prob. is $\frac{\binom{19}{4}}{16^5}$

$$E(|X|) = \sigma \sqrt{\frac{2}{\pi}}$$

$$X \sim N(0, \sigma^2)$$

1 Efficiency of the MLE

- 2 It is possible to show that the lower bound on the variance of any unbiased
3 estimator is $1/nI(\theta_0)$. This is called the Cramer-Rao lower bound.
- 4 Since the MLE is asymptotically unbiased, we know that we are achieving
5 the Cramer-Rao lower bound, at least asymptotically.
- 6 Hence, we are minimizing the MSE (asymptotically). This is objectively
7 the best rationale for utilizing maximum likelihood estimators.

1 Numerical Approach

- 2 In cases where the likelihood is maximized numerically, it is unlikely
3 that the Fisher Information can be derived.
- 4 Instead, we will use an approximation based on the result seen above:

5
$$nI(\theta) = E \left[-\frac{\partial^2}{\partial \theta^2} \log L(\theta) \right]$$

- 6 This result suggests that we can approximate $nI(\theta_0)$ by using the **curvature**
7 **at the peak of the observed likelihood function.**



- 8 This quantity is returned by most numerical optimization routines, called
9 the **Hessian**.
- 10 We will call this the observed Fisher Information.

1 **Example:** To illustrate the idea, let's consider a one-parameter model
 2 based on the Gamma distribution. In particular, we assume that
 3 $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n$ are i.i.d. $\text{Gamma}(\alpha, 1)$.

4 This means that

$$5 \quad f_X(x; \alpha) = \frac{1}{\Gamma(\alpha)} x^{\alpha-1} e^{-x}, \quad x > 0$$

6 If $\mathbf{x}$ is a vector holding the observed data values, then

> **sum(dgamma(x, alpha, 1, log=T))**

7 would return the likelihood evaluated at alpha.

1 The following function will return the MLE and the Hessian.

```
> onedgamma = function(x)
+ {
+   # The negative of the log-likelihood.
+   negloglikelihood = function(theta, x)
+   {
+     return((-1)*sum(dgamma(x, theta, 1, log=T)))
+   }
+
+   # Starting value is the MOM estimate.
+   thetahatmom = mean(x)
+
+   # The optimization.
+   optimout = optim(thetahatmom, negloglikelihood,
+                   x=x, hessian=T, method="BFGS")
+
+   return(list(mle = optimout$par, hessian=optimout$hessian))
+ }
```

1 Now, let's try it out:

```
> set.seed(1)
> x = rgamma(100, 3, 1)
> onedgamma(x)
```

```
$mle
```

```
[1] 3.022577
```

```
$hessian
```

```
[,1]
```

```
[1,] 39.14847
```

2 Conclude that our best estimate of α is 3.02, and we can say that the esti-
 3 mator is approximately normal with an approximate variance of $1/39.14 =$
 4 0.025. The standard error is approximately 0.16.

$$\frac{1}{nI(\hat{\alpha})}$$

5 More interesting examples will be considered when we move to multi-
 6 dimensional parameters.

1 **Exercise:** Why did I not need to take the negative of the Hessian in order
 2 to find the variance?

3 Remember that we are minimizing the negative
 4 log likelihood. Can think: Already include (-1)
 5 when calculated the negative log likelihood

6
 7 Instead of maximizing 

8
 9 we are minimizing 

1 Confidence Intervals

2 In those cases where we can state that the MLE is approximately normal
 3 with mean θ_0 and variance $1/nI(\theta_0)$, we can report an approximate $100(1 -$
 4 $\alpha)\%$ confidence interval for θ as

$$5 \quad \hat{\theta} \pm z_{\alpha/2} \sqrt{1/nI(\hat{\theta})} \quad \hat{\theta} \pm z_{\alpha/2} SE(\hat{\theta})$$

6 The derivation of this is much like what we saw in the previous Part, and
 7 derives from the fact that

$$8 \quad \frac{\hat{\theta} - \theta_0}{\sqrt{1/nI(\hat{\theta})}} \quad P(-z_{\alpha/2} \leq \frac{\hat{\theta} - \theta_0}{\sqrt{1/nI(\hat{\theta})}} \leq z_{\alpha/2}) = 1 - \alpha$$

9 has approximately the standard normal distribution. $P(L \leq \theta_0 \leq U)$

1 **Example:** Suppose that $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n$ are i.i.d. $\text{Poisson}(\lambda)$. Based on our
 2 previous results, we can now derive an approximate $100(1 - \alpha)\%$ confi-
 3 dence interval for λ as

$$4 \quad \bar{X} \pm z_{\alpha/2} \sqrt{\bar{X}/n}$$

5 since the MLE for λ is $\bar{X}$ and $I(\hat{\lambda}) = 1/\bar{X}$.

6 The validity of the above interval will depend on n . Is n large enough? The
 7 best way to check is via simulations, with realistic choices of λ_0 and n .

1 Consider the sample code below.

```
> # The true value of the parameter
> theta0 = 10
>  $\lambda$ 
> # The sample size
> n = 20
>
> # The number of repetitions of the simulation experiment
> reps = 10000
>
> # What confidence is desired? (i.e., we will construct
> # 100(1-alpha)% confidence intervals
> alpha = 0.05
>
> # Store thetahat, along with the lower and upper endpoint
> # of each confidence interval
> thetahat = numeric(reps)
```

```
> lower = numeric(reps)
> upper = numeric(reps)
>
> # Also store whether or not the confidence interval covers
> # the true value of the parameter
> coverstruth = logical(reps)
>
> # Start the loops
> for(i in 1:reps)
+ {
+
+ # Simulate the data set
+   x = rpois(n, theta0)
+
+ # Calculate the MLE
+   thetahat[i] = mean(x)
+ }
```

```

+ # Construct the confidence interval  $z_{\alpha/2}$ 
+   lower[i] = thetahat[i] - qnorm(1-alpha/2)*sqrt(thetahat[i]/n)
+   upper[i] = thetahat[i] + qnorm(1-alpha/2)*sqrt(thetahat[i]/n)
+
+ # Test if it covers theta0 or not
+   coverstruth[i] = (lower[i] <  $\underbrace{\text{theta0}}_{\text{truth}}$ ) & (upper[i] >  $\underbrace{\text{theta0}}_{\text{truth}}$ )
+ }
+
+ # Print the proportion that covers the truth. This should be
+ # close to 1-alpha
+ print(sum(coverstruth)/reps)
[1] 0.9498

```

1 **Exercise:** For $\lambda_0 = 10$, for how small of values of n does the normal ap-
 2 proximation still work adequately? What about when $\lambda_0 = 1$?

3 When $\lambda_0 = 10$, but $n=5$, still performs well, i.e.
 4 coverage is close to 0.95

5 When $\lambda_0 = 1$, but $n=5$, significantly undercover

7 Remember that the performance comes down to
 8 whether or $\bar{X}$ is approx. normal

10 CLT says that the sample size (n) required for
 $\bar{X}$ to be approx. normal is smaller when drawing
 from an approx. normal pop, such as Poisson(10)

1 The Delta Method

2 Often, our objective is not to estimate θ , but instead some function of θ , call
 3 it $g(\theta)$. For example, often want to estimate the probability of some event
 4 A . This probability is not a parameter, but it is a function of θ .

5 From the invariance property we know that the MLE of $g(\theta)$ is $g(\hat{\theta})$. But,
 6 we also need to calculate a SE or construct a confidence interval for this
 7 estimate.

8 One approach would be to “reparameterize” the model in terms of $g(\theta)$,
 9 and then find $I(g(\theta))$, and then use $1/I(g(\theta))$ as the variance, etc. Fortu-
 10 nately, there is an easier way...

1 Recall the Delta Method:

2 If Y_n is approximately $N(\mu, \sigma_n^2)$ and $\sigma_n^2 \rightarrow 0$ as n increases, then
 3 $g(Y_n)$ is approximately $N(g(\mu), (g'(\mu))^2 \sigma_n^2)$, assuming that $g'(\mu)$ ex-
 4 ists and is not zero.

5 Here we will use this result with the MLE for θ in place of Y_n .

6 Then, $\mu = \theta_0$ and $\sigma_n^2 = 1/nI(\theta_0)$.

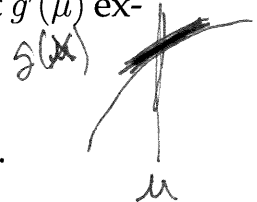
7 We can conclude that $g(\hat{\theta})$ is approximately

$$8 \quad N\left(g(\theta_0), g'(\theta_0)^2 \left(\frac{1}{nI(\theta_0)}\right)\right)$$

9 In practice, we use the approximate variance:

$$10 \quad g'(\hat{\theta})^2 \left(\frac{1}{nI(\hat{\theta})}\right)$$

In prob: $Y_n = \bar{X}_n$
 $\sigma_n^2 = \sigma^2/n$



- 1 **Exercise:** Suppose that $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n$ are i.i.d. Exponential(λ). We seek to
 2 estimate $\tau = P(X_i > a)$ for some constant $a > 0$. Construct the MLE and
 3 find its standard error. Also construct a confidence interval for τ .

$$\tau = g(\lambda) = e^{-\lambda a}$$

4 By invariance property, the MLE for τ is

$$5 \quad \hat{\tau} = g(\hat{\lambda}) = e^{-\hat{\lambda}a} = e^{-a/\bar{x}} \quad \text{since } \hat{\lambda} = 1/\bar{x}$$

6 We know $I(\lambda) = 1/\lambda^2$

$$7 \quad g'(\lambda) = \frac{dg}{d\lambda} = -ae^{-\lambda a}$$

8 So, we can say that $\hat{\tau}$ is approx.

$$9 \quad N\left(\tau_0, (g'(\lambda_0))^2 \left(\frac{1}{nI(\lambda_0)}\right)\right)$$

$$10 \quad \text{i.e. } N\left(\tau_0, (a^2 e^{-2\lambda_0 a}) \left(\frac{\lambda_0^2}{n}\right)\right)$$

1 **Practical Result:** $\hat{\tau}$ is approx. normal
 2 with variance of

$$3 \quad (a^2 e^{-2a/\bar{x}}) \left(\frac{1}{n\bar{x}^2}\right)$$

4 and approx. SE of

$$5 \quad (a e^{-a/\bar{x}}) \left(\frac{1}{\sqrt{n}\bar{x}}\right)$$

6 and a $100(1-\alpha)\%$ CI for τ is

$$7 \quad \hat{\tau} \pm z_{\alpha/2} (a e^{-a/\bar{x}}) \left(\frac{1}{\sqrt{n}\bar{x}}\right)$$

When does this fall apart?

$X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n$ iid $\text{Unif}(0, \theta)$

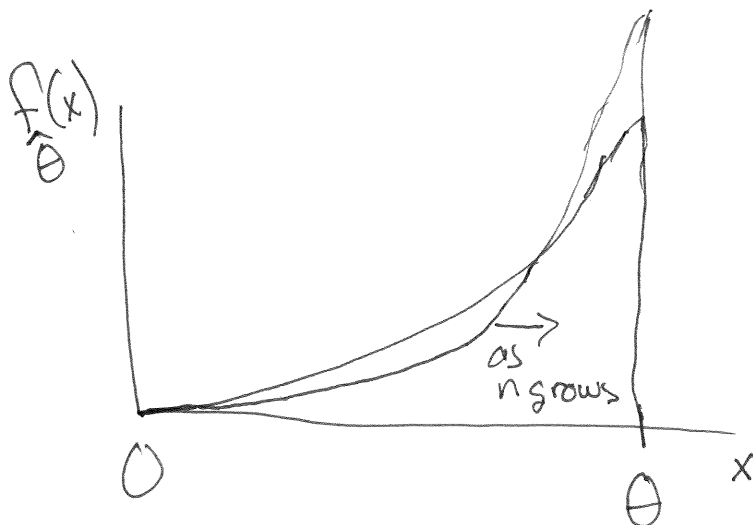
$$\hat{\theta}_{\text{MLE}} = X_{(n)}$$

What is the dist. of $\hat{\theta}_{\text{MLE}}$?

$$P(\hat{\theta}_{\text{MLE}} \leq x) = P(X_{(n)} \leq x) = \begin{cases} \left(\frac{x}{\theta}\right)^n, & 0 \leq x \leq \theta \\ 0, & x < 0 \\ 1, & x > \theta \end{cases}$$

So, the density is

$$f_{\hat{\theta}}(x) = \begin{cases} n \left(\frac{x}{\theta}\right)^{n-1} \left(\frac{1}{\theta}\right), & 0 \leq x \leq \theta \\ 0, & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$



never looks "normal"
for any n

Asymptotic normality does not hold. The problem is that the support depends on θ , violating a "regularity conditions"